# Score-Aligned Reinforcement Learning and RL-Tuned Model Predictive Control for Deployable Community Battery Storage

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***Abstract*—Batteries in grid-interactive buildings can lower electricity bills and emissions by shifting consumption in time, but a controller that runs in a real building never knows future prices, carbon intensity or demand. Model-free deep reinforcement learning (RL) is attractive because it learns a control policy from interaction alone, yet its performance depends heavily on how the reward encodes the operator's objectives. We study 100 deployable controllers for district-level battery control on the CityLearn Challenge 2022 benchmark: every controller acts on current measurements, past information and the forecasts provided by the environment, and nothing is trained on the buildings it is evaluated on in the unseen-building tests. For pure RL, the key ingredient is a *score-aligned counterfactual reward* whose per-step terms equal the official district-level key performance indicators (KPIs), scaled by their no-battery values and expressed as the improvement over idling. With Soft Actor-Critic (SAC) it lowers the electricity cost by 28.0% and the carbon emissions by 18.3% relative to no battery over three seeds, whereas a rule-based controller and a PPO cost-only agent are no better than idling; Truncated Quantile Critics (TQC) with past-only history features reaches a Phase I score of $0.763 \pm 0.005$. Pure RL, however, plateaus at a Phase III public score of 0.853. Following the challenge winners, we then combine leakage-free LightGBM load and PV forecasts, a receding-horizon linear-programming controller (MPC) and an RL agent that retunes the MPC's weights every hour. This *RL-tuned MPC* reduces cost by 33.6% and emissions by 21.7% on the training buildings and, evaluated with the official Phase III formulas on all 17 challenge buildings, reaches a public score of 0.782 and a private score of 0.845 (between 7th and 8th place; winner 0.728). Its carbon KPI of 0.769 is the lowest of all published Phase III entries (best 0.803). Load forecasting is the main remaining limit: with perfect net-load forecasts the same MPC would score 0.633.**

***Index Terms*—Battery energy storage, demand response, deep reinforcement learning, soft actor-critic, model predictive control, load forecasting, reward design, CityLearn, carbon-aware control, grid-interactive buildings.**

## I. Introduction

BUILDINGS account for a large share of electricity demand, and distributed photovoltaic (PV) generation and behind-the-meter batteries turn them into flexible grid resources. By charging when electricity is cheap or clean and discharging when it is expensive or carbon-intensive, a battery can reduce both the bill of its owner and the emissions caused by its consumption, while a coordinated fleet can also smooth the aggregate load seen by the distribution grid [1], [2].

Classical control of such systems relies either on hand-crafted rules or on model predictive control with forecasts of demand, generation, prices and carbon intensity. Rules are simple but cannot adapt, and optimisation-based control requires accurate models and forecasts that are costly to build for every building. Model-free deep reinforcement learning (RL) [3] offers an alternative: a policy is learned directly from interaction with the system, without an explicit model, and acts in real time on the information available at each step [4], [5]. The CityLearn environment [6], [7] and the NeurIPS 2022 CityLearn Challenge [8] made this setting a common benchmark, with an official score that combines electricity cost, carbon emissions and grid KPIs.

A recurring difficulty is that the quantities an operator cares about are yearly, district-level KPIs, whereas an RL agent optimises a per-step scalar reward. Naive choices, such as the negative bill of each building or a weighted sum of terms on arbitrary scales, are poorly aligned with the official KPIs: they ignore that exports earn nothing in the official cost, that buildings offset each other at district level, and that terms with different magnitudes dominate one another. They also produce high-variance learning targets because most of the reward is driven by exogenous demand rather than by the battery action. Our experiments show that such misalignment can make learned controllers no better than leaving the batteries idle.

This paper studies how far genuinely deployable controllers can go on the CityLearn 2022 benchmark. We deliberately restrict ourselves to controllers that could run in a real building: they see only current and past measurements and the forecasts that the environment itself provides, without access to future data or to precomputed optimal schedules, and every forecaster or policy evaluated on unseen buildings is trained without them. We first ask how far model-free RL alone can go when the reward is designed carefully, and then, following the approach of the challenge winners, combine forecasting, optimisation and RL. Our contributions are:

1) A systematic comparison of 100 deployable controllers: 65 model-free RL agents (PPO, SAC, TQC, CrossQ; central and decentralised; eight reward families; several network sizes, history features and training lengths), 27 model predictive controllers and 6 RL-tuned model predictive controllers.
2) A *score-aligned counterfactual reward* whose per-step terms sum to the official KPIs, scaled by the no-battery reference and expressed as the improvement over idling; with SAC it reduces cost by 28.0% and emissions by 18.3% relative to no battery, and with TQC and past-only history features it gives the best pure-RL Phase I score.

3) An *RL-tuned MPC*: leakage-free LightGBM forecasts (trained only on buildings outside the controlled district) drive a receding-horizon linear program whose weights an RL agent retunes every hour from district-level features, so one policy runs on districts of any size. Evaluated with the official Phase III formulas on all 17 challenge buildings it scores 0.782 (public) and 0.845 (private), with the lowest carbon KPI of all published entries.
4) Ablations and negative results (reward normalisation, decentralised agents, residual learning on a rule-based controller, larger networks, longer training, forecast blending), a generalisation test on unseen buildings, and an analysis showing that net-load forecasting is the main remaining limit.

The remainder of the paper is organised as follows. Section II surveys related work. Section III formulates the control problem and the KPIs. Section IV describes the agents, reward designs, forecasters and the RL-tuned MPC, Section V the experimental protocol, and Section VI the results. Section VII discusses limitations, Section VIII the relevance to the Sustainable Development Goals, and Section IX concludes.

## II. Related Work

### A. Reinforcement Learning for Building Energy and Demand Response

Vázquez-Canteli and Nagy [1] reviewed RL for demand response and found that most studies used tabular or simple function approximators, single buildings and bespoke simulators, which made results hard to compare. Wang and Hong [2] and Yu *et al.* [4] surveyed deep RL for building control, identifying sample efficiency, safety, reward design and generalisation across buildings as the main open problems. Nagy *et al.* [5] discussed ten questions on RL for building energy management, including the need for standard benchmarks and KPIs. Early deep RL applications include HVAC control with deep Q-networks [9], [10] and on-line building energy optimisation with deep policy-gradient and Q-learning methods [11]. Dulac-Arnold *et al.* [12] formalised the challenges of applying RL in the real world, many of which (multi-objective rewards, partial observability, limited data) are central to battery control.

### B. CityLearn and Grid-Interactive Communities

CityLearn [6] is an OpenAI Gym environment for coordinated demand response in districts of buildings with storage and PV; CityLearn v2 [7] extends it with electric vehicles, occupant comfort, resilience and carbon-aware control. MARLISA [13] coordinated multiple agents through iterative sequential action selection for load shaping. Nweye *et al.* [14] analysed real-world challenges for multi-agent RL in grid-interactive buildings, and MERLIN [15] studied offline and transfer learning for occupant-centric operation of communities. The NeurIPS 2022 CityLearn Challenge [8] evaluated controllers on cost, carbon and grid KPIs normalised by the case without batteries; we use its dataset, its official KPI definitions and its public leaderboard as reference points.

### C. Forecasting, Optimisation and the Challenge Winners

Model predictive control (MPC) solves an optimisation problem over a receding horizon with forecasts of the disturbances and applies only the first decision [16]. The top entries of the 2022 challenge, summarised by the organisers [17], all combined forecasting with optimisation or learning: the winner, Together, used gradient-boosted trees and linear models to forecast load and PV, a rolling-horizon stochastic optimisation and an ensemble with multi-agent PPO [18]; the runner-up used dynamic programming in the first phase and forecasts with a small policy network trained by CMA-ES [19] later; the third, CUFE, used linear forecasts and a per-building 24-hour linear program; the fourth, DivMARL, averaged a shared SAC policy with an XGBoost-driven rule. Our forecasters use LightGBM [20]. Unlike the challenge entries, which trained their forecasters on the public buildings that also form 40% of the public score, our forecasters never see the buildings they forecast.

### D. Deep RL Algorithms for Continuous Control

Battery set-points are continuous, so actor-critic methods are the natural choice. DDPG [21] and TD3 [22] learn deterministic policies with off-policy critics, TD3 adding clipped double Q-learning to curb over-estimation. Soft Actor-Critic (SAC) [23], [24] maximises reward plus policy entropy, with automatic temperature tuning, and is among the most robust off-policy methods. Proximal Policy Optimization (PPO) [25] is a widely used on-policy alternative. More recent work improves sample efficiency and value estimation: TQC [26] truncates a mixture of distributional critics, REDQ [27] uses an ensemble of critics with a high update-to-data ratio, CrossQ [28] removes target networks through batch normalisation, and multi-step returns [29] propagate delayed rewards faster. We use the Stable-Baselines3 implementations [30].

### E. Reward Design and Multi-Objective Weighting

Battery control is inherently multi-objective [31]: cost, emissions, ramping and peaks often conflict. Scalarising them requires weights and scales; poorly scaled terms let one objective dominate. Ng *et al.* [32] showed which reward transformations leave the optimal policy unchanged, a property we exploit with an action-independent counterfactual baseline. In multi-task learning, Dynamic Weight Average [33] and uncertainty weighting [34] adapt loss weights during training; we adapt the former to KPI weights in our adaptive multi-KPI rewards. For storage arbitrage specifically, Cao *et al.* [35] showed that including an accurate battery degradation model in the reward changes the learned arbitrage strategy, motivating the small battery-wear term in our rewards.

### F. Evaluation of RL Results

Henderson *et al.* [36] and Agarwal *et al.* [37] showed that deep RL results vary strongly with random seeds and that single-run comparisons are unreliable. We therefore report every result as the mean and standard deviation over three independent seeds and evaluate deterministic policies over a full year.

## III. Problem Formulation

### A. Environment

We use CityLearn 2.1.2 with the `citylearn_challenge_2022_phase_1` dataset: five residential buildings with rooftop PV and one battery each, simulated hourly for one year (8,759 control steps). Each building has an uncontrollable non-shiftable load and PV generation; the controller decides, every hour, the charge or discharge rate of each battery as a fraction of its capacity. Electricity is billed with a time-of-use tariff and the grid has a time-varying carbon intensity.

### B. Observations and Actions

A central agent observes 60 values: calendar features (month, day type, hour); outdoor temperature, relative humidity and diffuse and direct solar irradiance, each with the environment's 6, 12 and 24-hour forecasts; the current carbon intensity; and, for each building, its non-shiftable load, PV generation, battery state of charge (SoC), net electricity consumption, and the current electricity price with its 6, 12 and 24-hour values from the tariff. The action is a vector of five continuous battery rates. No future demand, generation or carbon intensity beyond these provided forecasts is available to the policy, so every controller in this paper can be deployed as is.

### C. Key Performance Indicators

Let $E_t$ be the district net consumption at hour $t$ (positive for imports), $\pi_t$ the price and $I_t$ the carbon intensity, and let a superscript "nb" denote the same quantity in the reference run without batteries. The official challenge KPIs are

$$C = \frac{\sum_t \max(0, E_t \pi_t)}{\sum_t \max(0, E_t^{\mathrm{nb}} \pi_t)}, \qquad G = \frac{\sum_t \max(0, E_t I_t)}{\sum_t \max(0, E_t^{\mathrm{nb}} I_t)}, \quad (1)$$

$$R = \frac{\sum_t |E_t - E_{t-1}|}{\sum_t |E_t^{\mathrm{nb}} - E_{t-1}^{\mathrm{nb}}|}, \qquad D = \tfrac{1}{2}\big(R + (1 - L)\big), \quad (2)$$

where $1 - L$ is the average monthly $1 - \bar{E}/\max E$ relative to no battery. Exports earn nothing, and because the clipping is applied to the district total, one building's export offsets another's import. All KPIs are ratios to no battery, so values below one are improvements. We report the Phase I score $(C + G)/2$, used for the challenge's Phase I leaderboard on these five buildings, and the score $S = (C + G + D)/3$, the challenge's overall formula.

## IV. Methods

### A. Agents

*Central* agents control all five batteries with one policy. *Decentralised* agents share one policy across buildings (parameter sharing): each building observes its own values plus a one-hot building identifier and outputs its own action. We train PPO [25] and SAC [23] agents with Stable-Baselines3 [30], and TQC [26] and CrossQ [28] agents with its sb3-contrib extension. We also test a residual agent whose action is added to the action of the rule-based controller (RBC) supplied with CityLearn, and variants with running normalisation of observations and rewards.

### B. Reward Families

We compare eight reward families (Table I): (i) the negative cost of each building; (ii) cost plus a static carbon weight; (iii) cost plus a carbon weight proportional to the current carbon intensity, or active only in the dirtiest 25% of hours; (iv) a multi-KPI reward

$$r_t = -\big(\hat{c}_t + \mu_g \hat{g}_t + \mu_r \hat{r}_t + \mu_p \hat{p}_t + w_b \hat{b}_t\big), \quad (3)$$

whose terms are cost, carbon, ramping $|E_t - E_{t-1}|$, the increase of the daily peak, and battery wear $\sum_i |\mathrm{SoC}_{i,t} - \mathrm{SoC}_{i,t-1}|$, each divided by its per-step mean under the RBC; (v) the same with *adaptive* weights $\mu$, updated once per simulated week in the style of Dynamic Weight Average [33]: the weight moves toward the KPI furthest behind its target, with a floor so that no KPI is ignored and a fixed total; (vi) cost and carbon plus a squared-load penalty; (vii) a *counterfactual* multi-KPI reward that adds back the same weighted terms of the no-battery run in the same hour; and (viii) the *score-aligned* rewards described next.

### C. Score-Aligned Counterfactual Reward

The proposed reward makes the per-step terms add up exactly to the numerators of the official KPIs and puts them on the scale of the KPIs. At hour $t$ we use the district-level clipped cost and emissions,

$$\hat{c}_t = \frac{\max(0, E_t \pi_t)}{\bar{c}^{\,\mathrm{nb}}}, \qquad \hat{g}_t = \frac{\max(0, E_t I_t)}{\bar{g}^{\,\mathrm{nb}}}, \qquad \hat{r}_t = \frac{|E_t - E_{t-1}|}{\bar{r}^{\,\mathrm{nb}}}, \quad (4)$$

where a bar denotes the per-step mean of the term in the no-battery run, so that $\sum_t \hat{c}_t = T \cdot C$: the yearly return is a linear function of the official KPIs. The peak term $\hat{p}_t$ is the increase of the running daily maximum of $E_t$, with the first hour of each day counting its full load, so that a day's terms sum to that day's peak (an earlier version without this correction let the agent hide a peak in the first hour of the day). The reward is

$$r_t = -\big(\hat{c}_t + w_g \hat{g}_t + w_r \hat{r}_t + w_p \hat{p}_t + w_b \hat{b}_t\big) + \big(\hat{c}_t^{\,\mathrm{nb}} + w_g \hat{g}_t^{\,\mathrm{nb}} + w_r \hat{r}_t^{\,\mathrm{nb}} + w_p \hat{p}_t^{\,\mathrm{nb}}\big). \quad (5)$$

The second bracket is the value of the same terms had the batteries stayed idle in that hour. It depends only on exogenous data, not on the actions or the battery state, so it leaves the optimal policy unchanged [32], but it removes most of the demand-driven variation from the reward: the agent is rewarded for the *improvement* it causes. In a deployed system this baseline is computable in real time from the measured net load and the battery's own power. The weights mirror the score $S = (C + G + (R + 1 - L)/2)/3$: cost weight 1, ramping and peak 0.5 each (the peak term serves as a per-step proxy for the load factor), and battery wear $w_b = 0.1$. We study three weightings: *score-aligned* ($w_g = 1$), *Phase I-aligned* ($w_g = 1$, $w_r = w_p = 0.2$) and *score-aligned with carbon weight 2* ($w_g = 2$), which places extra emphasis on emissions.

### D. Forecasting and Model Predictive Control

*Forecasters.* Each hour, the controller forecasts every building's non-shiftable load and PV generation, the carbon intensity and the price for the next $H = 24$ hours, using only data observed so far. The *seasonal* forecaster averages the same hour yesterday with the same hour over the last week and adds the current forecast error, decaying as $0.8^h$ over the horizon; prices repeat the same hour one week earlier. The *LightGBM* forecasters [20] predict load and PV for each horizon from recent and lagged values, seven-day same-hour means, the calendar, the current weather and the environment's own weather forecasts for the target hour. All value features are divided by the building's mean absolute value over the past week, so a model trained on some buildings applies to others, and the model used for a district is trained only on the buildings of the other two districts (leave-district-out).

*MPC.* Given the forecast net load $\hat{B}_h$ of the district (load minus PV), prices $\hat{\pi}_h$ and carbon intensities $\hat{I}_h$, the MPC solves the linear program

$$\begin{aligned} \min\ & \sum_{h=1}^{H}\Big(\tfrac{\hat{\pi}_h}{\bar{c}} + w_g\tfrac{\hat{I}_h}{\bar{g}}\Big)m_h + \tfrac{w_r}{2\bar{r}}\sum_{h=1}^{H}\rho_h - v\,\eta\sum_b s_{b,H} \\ \text{s.t. } & m_h \ge \hat{B}_h + \textstyle\sum_b (x^+_{b,h} - x^-_{b,h}),\ m_h \ge 0, \\ & \rho_h \ge |E_h - E_{h-1}|,\ E_h = \hat{B}_h + \textstyle\sum_b (x^+_{b,h} - x^-_{b,h}), \\ & s_{b,h} = s_{b,h-1} + \eta x^+_{b,h} - x^-_{b,h}/\eta,\ 0 \le s_{b,h} \le 6.4, \\ & 0 \le x^{\pm}_{b,h} \le \min(5,\ 21 - 3.125\, s_{b,h-1}), \end{aligned} \tag{6}$$

where $m_h$ is the district import (exports earn nothing), $\rho_h$ the ramp, $s_{b,h}$ the energy stored in battery $b$ (6.4 kWh, 5 kW, $\eta = \sqrt{0.9}$ each way, with CityLearn's power taper above 80% charge), $\bar{c}, \bar{g}, \bar{r}$ running no-battery means that put cost, carbon and ramping on the scale of the KPIs, and $v$ the median unit cost over the horizon, which values the energy left at its end. Only the first hour of the plan is applied, by moving each battery to its planned state of charge, and the problem is solved again one hour later (HiGHS, about 20 ms).

*RL-tuned MPC.* A fixed weighting cannot adapt to the season, the forecast quality or the battery state. In the RL-tuned MPC an RL agent (TQC or SAC) outputs three numbers $a \in [-1, 1]^3$ every hour that set the MPC's ramp weight $w_r = 2 \cdot 4^{a_1}$, carbon weight $w_g = 2^{a_2}$ and end-of-horizon value $v(1 + a_3/2)$. Its observation is district-level: the 24-hour forecasts of net load, carbon intensity and price, the time of day and season, the mean state of charge, the current load and month peak, and the latest forecast error. Because nothing in it depends on the number of buildings, a policy trained on the 5 training buildings also controls the 7-building test district. It is trained with the score-aligned reward of (5) for 100,000 environment steps on the training district.

## V. Experimental Setup

Every controller is trained for 200,000 environment steps (about 22.8 simulated years) and then evaluated with its deterministic policy over the full year. Each configuration is run with three seeds (42, 100, 2026), and we report mean $\pm$ standard deviation. SAC uses a learning rate of $3 \cdot 10^{-4}$, a replay buffer of 200,000 transitions, batch size 256, $\tau = 0.005$, $\gamma = 0.99$, one gradient step per environment step, 1,000 random warm-up steps, automatic entropy tuning and two hidden layers of 64 units. TQC uses the same settings, with two critics of 25 quantiles each and the top two quantiles of each critic dropped; CrossQ uses a learning rate of $10^{-3}$, no target networks and its default policy delay of 3. PPO uses rollouts of 2,048 steps, batch size 128, 10 epochs, $\gamma = 0.99$, GAE $\lambda = 0.95$, clip range 0.2 and two hidden layers of 64 units. The references are no battery (all KPIs equal to one) and CityLearn's `BasicRBC`. To test generalisation, the trained central policies are run without any retraining on the five unseen buildings of `citylearn_challenge_2022_phase_2`, which share the observation and action layout, and the KPIs are computed against the no-battery run on those buildings.

*Phase III protocol.* The challenge's final ranking used three districts: the 5 training buildings (1–5), 5 hidden validation buildings (6–10) and 7 hidden test buildings (11–17). With $S_d = (C + G + D)/3$ for district $d$, the public score is $0.4\,S_{\text{train}} + 0.6\,S_{\text{val}}$ and the private score, used to select the winners, is $0.2\,S_{\text{train}} + 0.3\,S_{\text{val}} + 0.5\,S_{\text{test}}$ [17]. All 17 buildings are available in CityLearn 2.1.2, so we compute both scores ourselves with the official KPI formulas; this is not the challenge's own evaluator. The MPC-based controllers are deterministic; the RL-tuned MPCs are reported for seed 42.

## VI. Results

### A. Overall Comparison

Table I and Fig. 1 summarise the official KPIs of all controllers. The RBC is worse than leaving the batteries idle on every KPI (Phase I 1.132): it charges and discharges on a fixed schedule that ignores the tariff, the carbon intensity and PV. PPO with the per-building cost or carbon-weighted rewards reduces cost by 6–8% but *increases* emissions and grid ramping (Phase I 0.98–1.01, $D \approx 1.5$), so it is no better than idling. Multi-KPI rewards help PPO (0.950 with adaptive weights), and a squared-load penalty gives the best PPO result (0.900).

Switching to SAC is the largest single step: with the same fixed multi-KPI reward, Phase I falls from 0.959 (PPO, M2) to 0.881 (SAC, M12). The counterfactual baseline then lowers it to 0.829 (M20), and making the terms exactly the official, district-level, no-battery-scaled ones lowers it to 0.786 (M26). Doubling the carbon weight gives the best SAC controller, M27, with Phase I $0.768 \pm 0.005$ and score $0.867 \pm 0.005$: cost $-28.0\%$ and emissions $-18.3\%$ relative to no battery, and a 22% lower Phase I score than the best reward of the earlier carbon-weighting baselines (B3, 0.984). Replacing SAC by TQC [26] with otherwise identical settings (M110) keeps the Phase I score ($0.768 \pm 0.004$) and lowers ramping, giving the best overall score of the pure RL controllers, $0.861 \pm 0.003$, with the smallest spread between seeds. Adding the past-only history features of Section VI-F to TQC (M113) gives the best Phase I score, $0.763 \pm 0.005$, with cost $-29.1\%$ and emissions $-18.4\%$ relative to no battery.

TABLE I
OFFICIAL KPIS RELATIVE TO NO BATTERY (LOWER IS BETTER), MEAN OVER THREE SEEDS (± STANDARD DEVIATION FOR THE TWO SCORES). BEST VALUE OF EACH COLUMN IN BOLD.

| ID | Controller | Phase I | Score $S$ | $C$ | $G$ | $D$ |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| – | No battery | 1.000 | 1.000 | 1.000 | 1.000 | **1.000** |
| B0 | RBC (CityLearn) | 1.132 | 1.113 | 1.070 | 1.193 | 1.075 |
| B1 | PPO, cost only | 1.004±.004 | 1.174±.015 | 0.939 | 1.070 | 1.515 |
| B3 | PPO, static carbon | 0.984±.022 | 1.144±.032 | 0.918 | 1.050 | 1.464 |
| B4 | PPO, dynamic carbon | 1.007±.068 | 1.181±.088 | 0.942 | 1.072 | 1.530 |
| M2 | PPO, multi-KPI fixed | 0.959±.034 | 1.068±.051 | 0.937 | 0.981 | 1.285 |
| M3 | PPO, multi-KPI adaptive | 0.950±.023 | 1.077±.026 | 0.923 | 0.978 | 1.330 |
| M9 | PPO, cost + carbon + load$^2$ | 0.900±.004 | 1.061±.013 | 0.833 | 0.967 | 1.382 |
| M5 | PPO, decentralised adaptive | 1.001±.000 | 1.003±.000 | 1.001 | 1.001 | 1.006 |
| M12 | SAC, multi-KPI fixed | 0.881±.020 | 0.982±.032 | 0.831 | 0.931 | 1.184 |
| M13 | SAC, + obs. and reward norm. | 0.966±.053 | 1.004±.024 | 0.952 | 0.980 | 1.081 |
| M16 | SAC, residual on RBC | 0.956±.026 | 1.007±.014 | 0.933 | 0.978 | 1.111 |
| M19 | SAC, multi-KPI, carbon 2 | 0.890±.017 | 0.981±.022 | 0.841 | 0.940 | 1.163 |
| M20 | SAC, counterfactual | 0.829±.003 | 0.917±.009 | 0.781 | 0.877 | 1.091 |
| M26 | SAC, score-aligned | 0.786±.008 | 0.870±.006 | 0.732 | 0.840 | 1.036 |
| M28 | SAC, Phase I-aligned | 0.779±.003 | 0.876±.001 | 0.727 | 0.831 | 1.071 |
| M27 | SAC, score-aligned, carbon 2 | 0.768±.005 | 0.867±.005 | 0.720 | 0.817 | 1.064 |
| M110 | TQC, score-aligned, carbon 2 | 0.768±.004 | **0.861**±.003 | 0.720 | **0.816** | 1.046 |
| M113 | TQC + history features | **0.763**±.005 | 0.862±.006 | **0.709** | **0.816** | 1.060 |

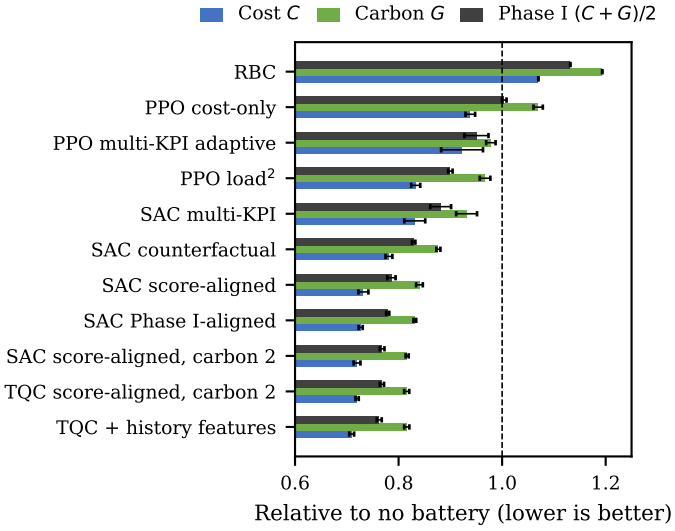



Fig. 1. Cost $C$, carbon $G$ and Phase I score of representative controllers relative to no battery (dashed line); error bars show the standard deviation over three seeds.

## B. The Three Best Controllers

The three score-aligned SAC controllers are the best SAC controllers of the study and are remarkably consistent across seeds (Table II): the standard deviation of the Phase I score is at most 0.008. Raising the carbon weight from 1 (M26) to 2 (M27) lowers emissions from 0.840 to 0.817 and, because cheap hours are often also clean, cost from 0.732 to 0.720, at the price of more ramping ($R$ 1.101 to 1.156). Lowering the grid weights (M28) gives an intermediate result. All three improve the load factor ($1 - L < 1$) but increase ramping relative to no battery, so their grid KPI $D$ stays slightly above one.

TABLE II
THE THREE BEST SAC CONTROLLERS: KPIS (MEAN ± STD OVER SEEDS 42, 100, 2026).

| KPI | M27 (carbon 2) | M28 (Phase I-aligned) | M26 (score-aligned) |
|---|---|---|---|
| Cost $C$ | **0.720**±0.006 | 0.727±0.004 | 0.732±0.010 |
| Carbon $G$ | **0.817**±0.003 | 0.831±0.003 | 0.840±0.007 |
| Ramping $R$ | 1.156 | 1.167 | **1.101** |
| $1 - L$ | 0.972 | 0.975 | **0.971** |
| Grid $D$ | 1.064 | 1.071 | **1.036** |
| Phase I $(C + G)/2$ | **0.768**±0.005 | 0.779±0.003 | 0.786±0.008 |
| Score $S$ | **0.867**±0.005 | 0.876±0.001 | 0.870±0.006 |

## C. Ablations and Negative Results

*Off-policy learning.* With identical rewards SAC beats PPO by a wide margin (M2 vs. M12), consistent with its better sample efficiency on long-horizon continuous control; 200,000 steps correspond to only about 23 simulated years.

*Counterfactual baseline.* Adding back the no-battery terms (M12 to M20) lowers Phase I from 0.881 to 0.829 and reduces the seed-to-seed spread from 0.020 to 0.003. The baseline does not change the optimal policy, so this gain comes entirely from lower-variance critic targets.

*KPI-exact terms.* Replacing per-building bills by district-level clipped cost and emissions and scaling by the no-battery reference (M20 to M26) gives a further 0.043. The per-building bill rewards exports that the official cost does not, and ignores that buildings offset each other.

*Normalisation hurts.* Running normalisation of observations and rewards (M13) worsens SAC from 0.881 to 0.966 and makes it far less stable across seeds; normalising only observations (M17, 0.886) is neutral.

*Decentralised PPO collapses.* Shared per-building PPO policies with adaptive weights (M5, M6) converge to leaving the batteries idle (all KPIs 1.00), and adding district-level penalties (M10, M11) does not prevent it. A central SAC agent with the counterfactual reward, carbon weight 2 and per-building (non-official) cost and carbon terms also collapsed to idling (M21, one seed), which motivated the KPI-exact terms of M26–M28.

*Residual RL.* Learning a correction on top of the RBC (M16, 0.956) is worse than learning from scratch, because the RBC itself is a poor starting point.

## D. Learning Dynamics and Learned Behaviour

With the counterfactual reward of (5), the mean reward per step is the weighted KPI improvement over idling, so zero means "as good as no battery". Fig. 2 shows it for the training episodes of M27 and M26. Both start far below zero (random exploration in the first year), cross zero in the second episode and approach their final level after about six to ten episodes; the three seeds of each method follow almost the same curve. The higher plateau of M27 reflects its doubled carbon weight, which scales its reward, rather than a better policy per se. Fig. 3 shows one summer week of the learned policy: the batteries charge from about 09:00 to 14:00, when PV covers the load, and discharge from the late afternoon through the evening and night, covering the tariff peak (16:00–21:00) and

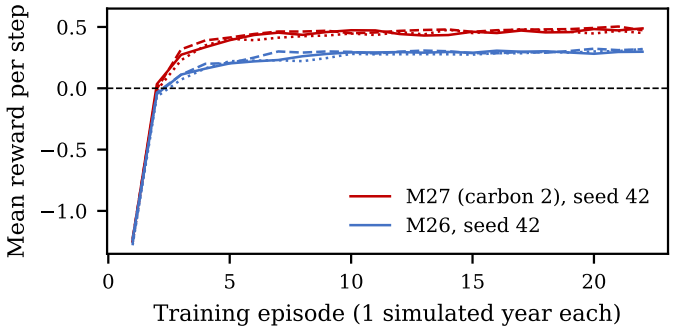



Fig. 2. Mean per-step training reward (weighted KPI improvement over no battery; 0 = as good as idling) of M27 and M26, three seeds each (solid: 42, dashed: 100, dotted: 2026).

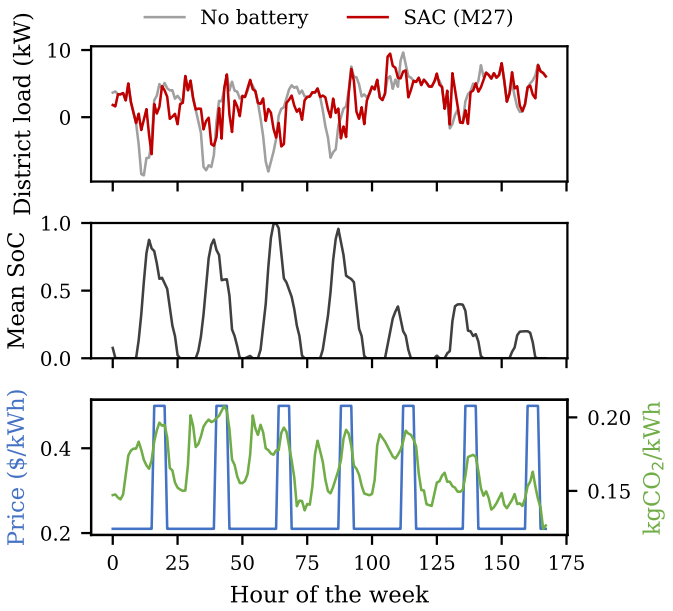



Fig. 3. One July week of M27 (seed 42): district net load with and without batteries, mean state of charge, and the price and carbon intensity the policy observes.

the hours of highest carbon intensity, which lowers the evening import peak.

### E. Generalisation to Unseen Buildings

Table III reports the trained policies, unchanged, on the five unseen buildings of the challenge's phase 2 dataset. The score-aligned controllers keep their benefit: M27 reduces cost by 27.8% (28.0% on the training buildings) and emissions by 20.7% (18.3%), while the earlier SAC multi-KPI controller (M12) transfers much less well. The ranking on the unseen buildings follows the ranking on the training buildings, so the gains from reward design are not an artefact of fitting the five training buildings. The public formula of the challenge's Phase III, $0.4\,S_{\text{train}} + 0.6\,S_{\text{unseen}}$, gives $0.859 \pm 0.005$ for M27, $0.853 \pm 0.002$ for the TQC controller M110 and $0.854 \pm 0.001$ for TQC with history features (M113). M113 also gives the largest savings on the unseen buildings: cost $-29.1\%$ and emissions $-20.9\%$.

TABLE III
POLICIES TRAINED ON THE PHASE 1 BUILDINGS, EVALUATED WITHOUT RETRAINING ON THE FIVE UNSEEN PHASE 2 BUILDINGS (MEAN OVER THREE SEEDS; M12 AND M20: SEED 42 ONLY).

| Controller | $C$ | $G$ | $D$ | $S_{\text{unseen}}$ | $0.4S_{\text{train}} + 0.6S_{\text{unseen}}$ |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| M12 SAC multi-KPI | 0.811 | 0.893 | 1.099 | 0.934 | 0.946 |
| M20 SAC counterfactual | 0.777 | 0.848 | 1.066 | 0.897 | 0.905 |
| M26 SAC score-aligned | 0.736 | 0.815 | **1.021** | 0.857 | 0.862 |
| M28 SAC Phase I-aligned | 0.723 | 0.809 | 1.050 | 0.861 | 0.867 |
| M27 SAC score-aligned, c. 2 | 0.722 | 0.793 | 1.049 | 0.854 | 0.859 |
| M112 M27 + history features | 0.715 | 0.803 | 1.025 | **0.847** | 0.854 |
| M110 TQC score-aligned, c. 2 | 0.718 | 0.793 | 1.032 | **0.847** | **0.853** |
| M113 TQC + history features | **0.709** | **0.791** | 1.046 | 0.849 | 0.854 |

### F. Additional Algorithms, Architectures and Features

Starting from M27, we screened further changes, one at a time, on a shorter budget of 60,000 steps (about seven simulated years) and seed 42 (Table IV). The reference is M27 retrained with the same budget (M102), whose Phase I score over three seeds is $0.794 \pm 0.016$ (seed 42: 0.803). The algorithms are TQC [26], with truncated distributional critics, and CrossQ [28], with batch-normalised critics and no target networks. The history features, computed only from past observations, are the cyclic hour and month and a persistence forecast taken from yesterday: the carbon intensity and the district load minus PV $24 - h$ hours earlier for the next $h = 1, 2, 3, 6, 12$ hours. The environment provides no forecast of carbon intensity or load, and both follow a daily pattern. The "rich" variant adds each building's own lagged load minus PV, the values 24 hours earlier and yesterday's mean and maximum; the "dense" variant uses every next hour from 1 to 12.

No change improved on the control by more than its seed-to-seed spread. The history features gave the best single run (0.774), but over three seeds they scored $0.808 \pm 0.030$, no better than the control; TQC (0.794) and the history variants with observation normalisation (0.787), a batch of 512 (0.787) or rich features (0.789) were also within one standard deviation. Larger networks, two gradient updates per step, a carbon weight of 3, $\gamma = 0.95$ and CrossQ were slightly worse. Three-step returns, a faster target update ($\tau = 0.02$) and a shared per-building SAC policy were clearly worse; the latter collapsed to idling, like the decentralised PPO agents. Averaging the actions of the three M27 seeds also hurt (Phase I 0.841), because the averaged actions are too cautious. With the reward fixed, the choice of off-policy algorithm, network size and input features matters much less than the reward design and the training length.

### G. Full-Budget Tests and Training Length

Because screening at 60,000 steps is noisy, the most promising variants were retrained at the full budget with three seeds (Table V). TQC (M110), the best algorithm in the screening, matches M27 on cost and carbon and improves the grid KPI ($D$ 1.046 vs. 1.064), giving the best score, $0.861 \pm 0.003$, with the smallest spread across seeds, consistent with the reduced over-estimation bias of its truncated distributional critics [26]. The gain is not specific to one weighting: with the score-aligned reward of carbon weight 1, TQC (M114) improves on

TABLE IV
SCREENING OF ADDITIONAL CHANGES TO M27 AT 60,000 ENVIRONMENT STEPS (PHASE I AND SCORE RELATIVE TO NO BATTERY; SEED 42 UNLESS STATED). CONTROL: M27 AT THE SAME BUDGET.

| ID | Change from M27 | Phase I | Score $S$ | $C$ | $G$ |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| M102 | none (control), 3 seeds | 0.794±.016 | 0.882±.006 | 0.751 | 0.838 |
| M93 | history features, 3 seeds | 0.808±.030 | 0.887±.010 | 0.769 | 0.847 |
| M93 | history features (seed 42) | 0.774 | 0.876 | 0.728 | 0.821 |
| M105 | history + observation norm. | 0.787 | 0.886 | 0.738 | 0.835 |
| M107 | history, batch size 512 | 0.787 | 0.878 | 0.744 | 0.830 |
| M103 | rich history | 0.789 | 0.876 | 0.746 | 0.832 |
| M91 | TQC, 256×256 | 0.794 | 0.887 | 0.750 | 0.838 |
| M104 | dense history | 0.801 | 0.879 | 0.765 | 0.837 |
| M96 | 256×256 + history | 0.801 | 0.884 | 0.755 | 0.847 |
| M92 | CrossQ, 256×256 | 0.805 | 0.892 | 0.768 | 0.842 |
| M95 | $\gamma = 0.95$ | 0.808 | 0.887 | 0.761 | 0.854 |
| M90 | 256×256 networks | 0.809 | 0.899 | 0.764 | 0.853 |
| M99 | 2 gradient steps per env step | 0.809 | 0.898 | 0.772 | 0.847 |
| M97 | TQC + history | 0.810 | 0.897 | 0.764 | 0.856 |
| M106 | history, learning rate $10^{-3}$ | 0.810 | 0.898 | 0.768 | 0.852 |
| M100 | CrossQ + history | 0.812 | 0.890 | 0.779 | 0.846 |
| M101 | carbon weight 3 | 0.813 | 0.892 | 0.767 | 0.860 |
| M108 | history, $\tau = 0.02$ | 0.859 | 0.931 | 0.829 | 0.890 |
| M94 | 3-step returns | 0.864 | 0.928 | 0.824 | 0.903 |
| M98 | shared per-building policy | 1.000 | 1.000 | 1.000 | 1.000 |

SAC (M26) from $0.786 \pm 0.008$ to $0.774 \pm 0.006$ in Phase I and from 0.870 to 0.866 in score. With the history features (M112), the Phase I score ($0.771 \pm 0.007$) is statistically indistinguishable from M27 ($0.768 \pm 0.005$): cost and the grid KPI improve slightly ($C$ 0.717, $D$ 1.048) while emissions rise slightly ($G$ 0.825). On the unseen buildings M112 is marginally better than M27 (public score $0.854 \pm 0.006$ vs. $0.859 \pm 0.005$, Table III), mainly through a lower $D$. Stacking the rich history with observation normalisation (M111) is clearly worse ($0.795 \pm 0.008$). Combining the two best changes, TQC and the history features (M113), gives the best pure-RL Phase I score, $0.763 \pm 0.005$, through a lower cost ($C$ 0.709) at unchanged emissions ($G$ 0.816), and the largest savings on the unseen buildings ($C$ 0.709, $G$ 0.791); its score ($0.862 \pm 0.006$) equals that of TQC alone. With TQC, the persistence forecast of carbon intensity and net load thus helps the policy to schedule cheaper charging, while with SAC its benefit was within the seed-to-seed spread.

Training length matters, but not monotonically. M27 scores $0.794 \pm 0.016$ after 60,000 steps, $0.768 \pm 0.005$ after 200,000 and $0.786 \pm 0.013$ when training continues to 400,000 steps from the 200,000-step checkpoints (M109): with a constant learning rate and entropy target, the policy drifts after it has converged, and the spread between seeds grows again. Early stopping on a validation year, or a decaying learning rate, would be needed to exploit longer training.

### H. Forecasting, MPC and RL-Tuned MPC

Table VI compares the forecasters. PV is easy to forecast ($R^2 \geq 0.95$), but household load is not ($R^2$ of 0.36–0.57, about 40% normalised error); LightGBM reduces the district net-load error by 3–14% over the seasonal forecaster, least on the test district, whose buildings differ most from the training ones. Blending the two forecasts with an online self-correction made the plans jumpier and was discarded (Phase III public 0.847).

TABLE V
FULL-BUDGET VARIANTS OF M27 (THREE SEEDS, MEAN ± STD; LOWER IS BETTER).

| ID | Variant | Steps | Phase I | Score $S$ | $C$ | $G$ |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| M102 | M27 (short budget) | 60k | 0.794±.016 | 0.882±.006 | 0.751 | 0.838 |
| M27 | proposed (SAC) | 200k | 0.768±.005 | 0.867±.005 | 0.720 | 0.817 |
| M112 | + history features | 200k | 0.771±.007 | 0.863±.004 | 0.717 | 0.825 |
| M111 | + rich history + obs. norm. | 200k | 0.795±.008 | 0.891±.009 | 0.747 | 0.843 |
| M109 | M27 trained longer | 400k | 0.786±.013 | 0.885±.018 | 0.738 | 0.833 |
| M110 | TQC instead of SAC | 200k | 0.768±.004 | **0.861**±.003 | 0.720 | **0.816** |
| M113 | TQC + history features | 200k | **0.763**±.005 | 0.862±.006 | **0.709** | **0.816** |
| M26 | SAC, carbon weight 1 | 200k | 0.786±.008 | 0.870±.006 | 0.732 | 0.840 |
| M114 | TQC, carbon weight 1 | 200k | 0.774±.006 | 0.866±.004 | 0.721 | 0.826 |

TABLE VI
FORECAST ACCURACY: DISTRICT NET-LOAD (LOAD − PV) MEAN ABSOLUTE ERROR OVER THE NEXT 24 HOURS (KWH, SUMMED OVER THE DISTRICT'S BUILDINGS), AND $R^2$ OF THE LIGHTGBM LOAD AND PV FORECASTS. LIGHTGBM MODELS ARE TRAINED LEAVE-DISTRICT-OUT.

| District | Buildings | Seasonal MAE | LightGBM MAE | Load $R^2$ | PV $R^2$ |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Train | 1–5 | 2.65 | **2.30** | 0.40 | 0.96 |
| Validation | 6–10 | 3.28 | **2.83** | 0.36 | 0.95 |
| Test | 11–17 | 3.82 | **3.71** | 0.57 | 0.95 |

TABLE VII
MPC AND RL-TUNED MPC. PHASE I, $S$, $C$, $G$, $D$ ON THE TRAINING BUILDINGS; PHASE III PUBLIC AND PRIVATE SCORES OVER ALL 17 BUILDINGS (LOWER IS BETTER). RL-TUNED CONTROLLERS: SEED 42.

| ID | Controller | Phase I | $S$ | $C$ | $G$ | $D$ | Public | Private |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| – | MPC, seasonal, no ramp term | 0.774 | 0.974 | 0.706 | 0.842 | 1.374 | 0.958 | 1.083 |
| – | MPC, seasonal, ramp weight 2 | 0.745 | 0.811 | 0.691 | 0.798 | 0.944 | 0.808 | 0.856 |
| – | MPC, LightGBM, ramp weight 3 | 0.745 | 0.792 | 0.706 | 0.785 | **0.886** | 0.789 | 0.848 |
| M129 | RL-tuned MPC, seasonal (TQC) | 0.728 | 0.808 | **0.663** | 0.793 | 0.970 | 0.807 | 0.864 |
| M131 | RL-tuned MPC, LightGBM (TQC) | **0.723** | 0.787 | 0.664 | **0.783** | 0.914 | **0.782** | 0.845 |
| M135 | RL-tuned MPC, LightGBM (SAC) | 0.724 | **0.786** | 0.665 | **0.783** | 0.909 | **0.782** | **0.844** |
| M133 | M131, carbon weight 1 in reward | 0.727 | **0.786** | 0.669 | 0.784 | 0.905 | – | – |
| M113 | best pure RL (TQC), 3 seeds | 0.763 | 0.862 | 0.709 | 0.816 | 1.060 | 0.854 | – |

Table VII reports the MPC and RL-tuned MPC controllers on the training buildings and with the Phase III scores. Without a ramp penalty the MPC already matches the best RL on cost but ramps heavily ($D = 1.37$); a ramp weight of 2–3 fixes this and gives a Phase III public score of 0.807, better than any pure RL controller (0.853 for TQC). LightGBM forecasts improve it to 0.789. Letting RL retune the MPC's weights every hour adds a further gain on top of the LightGBM MPC: the RL-tuned MPC lowers the cost to 0.664 and carbon to 0.783 on the training buildings and reaches public 0.782 and private 0.845; TQC (M131) and SAC (M135) give the same result, and a carbon weight of 1 in its reward (M133) changes nothing. On the seasonal forecasts, the RL tuning helps on the training buildings but not on the unseen ones (M129, public 0.807): the agent learns weight choices specific to the training buildings when the forecasts are poor.

To measure how much better forecasting could still give, we ran the same MPC (ramp weight 2) on the training buildings with its net-load forecast replaced by the true net load plus $k$ times the seasonal forecast's error: $S$ = 0.811, 0.761, 0.713, 0.669 and 0.633 for $k = 1, 0.75, 0.5, 0.25, 0$. Perfect carbon-intensity forecasts alone changed nothing ($S$ = 0.810). This diagnostic uses the future and is only an upper bound: it shows that net-load forecasting, not the optimiser or the RL, is the main remaining limit.

TABLE VIII
PHASE III PUBLIC LEADERBOARD (TOP 8 OF THE PUBLISHED ENTRIES) WITH OUR BEST DEPLOYABLE CONTROLLER.

| Rank | Team | Score | $C$ | $G$ | $D$ |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 1 | Together | **0.728** | **0.639** | 0.808 | **0.738** |
| 2 | ambitiousengineers | 0.742 | 0.681 | 0.803 | 0.743 |
| 3 | CUFE | 0.753 | 0.665 | 0.804 | 0.789 |
| 4 | EVERGi_team | 0.756 | 0.643 | 0.826 | 0.800 |
| 5 | Orca | 0.760 | 0.659 | 0.836 | 0.784 |
| 6 | Greener | 0.764 | 0.663 | 0.821 | 0.809 |
| 7 | DivMARL | 0.767 | 0.653 | 0.805 | 0.842 |
| – | *Ours: RL-tuned MPC (M131)* | *0.782* | *0.661* | ***0.769*** | *0.916* |
| 8 | SCRG_UA | 0.789 | 0.666 | 0.880 | 0.820 |

TABLE IX
WHERE THE RL-TUNED MPC WOULD RANK ON EACH KPI OF THE PHASE III PUBLIC LEADERBOARD.

| KPI | Ours (M131) | Best published | Rank |
|---|---|---|---|
| Carbon $G$ | **0.769** | 0.803 (ambitiousengineers) | **1st** ($-4\%$ vs. the best entry) |
| Cost $C$ | 0.661 | 0.639 (Together) | about 5th |
| Grid $D$ | 0.916 | 0.738 (Together) | below the top 10 |
| Overall | 0.782 | 0.728 (Together) | between 7th and 8th |

### I. Comparison with the Challenge Leaderboard

Table VIII places our best deployable controller in the published Phase III public leaderboard [8], whose values are blends of the training and validation districts; for our row the same 0.4/0.6 blend of $C$, $G$ and $D$ is shown. The RL-tuned MPC scores 0.782, between the 7th (0.767) and 8th (0.789) entries; the winner reached 0.728. Per KPI (Table IX), its carbon of 0.769 is lower than that of every published entry (best 0.803), its cost of 0.661 would rank about 5th, and the gap to the top lies almost entirely in the grid KPI ($D$ 0.916 vs. 0.738 for the winner): our reward weights carbon twice as much as cost and trades some grid smoothness for emissions. Two differences favour the published entries: they trained their forecasters on the public buildings that make up 40% of the public score, which ours never see, and their scores come from the official evaluator.

On the Phase I leaderboard ($(C+G)/2$ on the public training buildings) the best entries scored 0.631, 0.635 and 0.651; the RL-tuned MPC's 0.723 would rank 6th and the best pure RL (0.763) 11th. Phase I was scored on the same public year the teams received in full, so optimisation on that year's actual data was possible: the runner-up used dynamic programming on it in Phase I [17]. Phase III, with buildings no team had seen, is the fair comparison for a deployable controller.

## VII. DISCUSSION

*What matters most.* For pure RL, the ablations point to one principle: the reward should measure, on the right scale, what the evaluation measures, and as much of the uncontrollable variation as possible should be removed from it. SAC benefits more from these changes than PPO, and the gains add up. Beyond that, pure RL plateaus: on unseen buildings the best policies score about 0.85, and the larger step comes from adding explicit forecasts and an optimiser. RL then works best not as the controller itself but as the component that adapts the optimiser's trade-offs, and only once the forecasts are good: with LightGBM forecasts the RL-tuned MPC transfers its gains to unseen buildings, with the seasonal ones it does not.

*Grid KPIs.* The pure RL controllers increase ramping relative to no battery; the MPC with a ramp penalty brings $D$ below one, but the best controller's $D$ (0.916 on the public blend) is still the main gap to the winner (0.738). A stronger load-factor term in the MPC, and an RL reward weighted like the Phase III score, are the obvious next steps; weighting the grid terms more in the reward of the seasonal RL-tuned MPC (M132) smoothed the load (D 0.934) but did not improve its Phase III score.

*Deployability.* The controllers use only information available in a real building: present measurements, the environment's weather and tariff forecasts, and the measured battery power (for the counterfactual baseline during training). They transfer to unseen buildings without retraining, which supports their use as a starting point that can be fine-tuned on site.

*Limitations.* The study uses one climate, five training buildings and one year of data; carbon intensity and load are not forecast by the environment. Three seeds give reliable means at the full budget (standard deviations $\leq 0.008$ for the best controllers), but at 60,000 steps the spread grows to 0.016–0.030, so single-seed screening at short budgets can mislead: the history features looked best with SAC on one seed, gave no reliable gain over three seeds, and only helped once combined with TQC at the full budget. Larger studies should use more seeds [37]. The RL-tuned MPC results are for one seed; seeds 100 and 2026 are being run to confirm them. The Phase III scores are computed with the official formulas on CityLearn 2.1.2, not by the challenge's evaluator, and the dataset's weather "forecasts" equal the actual weather, which every entry received alike. Household load remains hard to forecast hourly; the deep sequence forecasters we prepared (MLP, LSTM and Transformer, trained leave-district-out) are the next step.

## VIII. RELEVANCE TO THE SUSTAINABLE DEVELOPMENT GOALS

Battery control in grid-interactive buildings addresses several of the United Nations Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs). Table X lists the goals this work contributes to, ordered by relevance.

## IX. CONCLUSION

We studied 100 deployable controllers for community battery storage on the CityLearn 2022 benchmark. A rule-based controller and naive RL rewards were no better than leaving the batteries idle. A score-aligned counterfactual reward, whose per-step terms add up to the official KPIs on the no-battery scale and measure the improvement over idling, made model-free RL effective: with SAC it reduced electricity cost by 28.0% and emissions by 18.3% over three seeds, and TQC with past-only history features gave the best pure-RL Phase I score (0.763). Pure RL, however, plateaued at a Phase III public score of about 0.85. Combining leakage-free LightGBM

TABLE X
UNITED NATIONS SUSTAINABLE DEVELOPMENT GOALS ADDRESSED BY THIS WORK.

| SDG | Relevance | Justification |
|---|---|---|
| **SDG 13 – Climate Action** | ★★★★★ | Dynamic carbon-aware reward shaping minimises $CO_2$ emissions by adapting battery dispatch to real-time grid carbon intensity. |
| **SDG 7 – Affordable and Clean Energy** | ★★★★★ | Optimises battery storage and rooftop solar utilisation, improving energy efficiency and supporting renewable energy integration. |
| **SDG 11 – Sustainable Cities and Communities** | ★★★★☆ | Coordinates energy management across multiple residential buildings within the CityLearn smart-city environment. |
| **SDG 9 – Industry, Innovation and Infrastructure** | ★★★☆☆ | Demonstrates an AI-based control framework for intelligent energy infrastructure. |
| **SDG 12 – Responsible Consumption and Production** | ★★☆☆☆ | Encourages efficient electricity consumption and demand shifting toward lower-carbon periods. |

forecasts, a receding-horizon linear program and an RL agent that retunes the optimiser's weights every hour reduced cost by 33.6% and emissions by 21.7% and reached Phase III public and private scores of 0.782 and 0.845, between 7th and 8th place of the published leaderboard, with the lowest carbon KPI of any published entry (0.769 vs. 0.803). The remaining gap to the winner lies in the grid KPI and, above all, in hourly load forecasting: with perfect net-load forecasts the same optimiser would score 0.633. For practitioners, the recipe is to align the reward with the evaluation, use RL to adapt an optimiser rather than to replace it, and invest in forecasting.

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